

A Lazy Decision Procedure for LIA^{*} in `cvc5`, Explained by Example

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Abstract

This document explains the algorithms behind the lazy decision procedure for the *additive closure* (star) operator in `cvc5`, and the sequence of improvements that took a benchmark family from 450/480 solved to 480/480 (median 45 ms per instance). It is written to be self-contained: every concept is defined in plain language when it first appears, every definition and every claim comes with a small worked example placed right where it is used, and one *running example* is carried through the whole document. Negative experimental results are included, because two of them supplied the machinery for the final breakthroughs.

1 The problem

1.1 Vectors, sums, and the star of a set

We work with vectors of non-negative integers, written $\vec{x} = (x_1, \dots, x_n)$. Vectors are added coordinate-wise: $(1, 0) + (0, 2) = (1, 2)$.

Running example (used throughout this document). Let p be the predicate

$$p(x, y) = \underbrace{(x \geq 1 \wedge y = 0)}_{\text{“horizontal”}} \vee \underbrace{(x = 0 \wedge y \geq 2)}_{\text{“vertical”}},$$

and let S be the set of non-negative integer vectors satisfying it:

$$S = \{(1, 0), (2, 0), (3, 0), \dots\} \cup \{(0, 2), (0, 3), (0, 4), \dots\}.$$

The *star* of S , written S^* , is the set of all vectors obtainable by adding finitely many members of S (taking *zero* members is allowed, which produces the zero vector $\vec{0}$):

$$S^* = \left\{ \vec{s}_1 + \dots + \vec{s}_k \mid k \geq 0, \vec{s}_j \in S \right\}.$$

Example. In the running example:

- $(3, 7) \in S^*$, because $(3, 7) = (3, 0) + (0, 7)$, and both summands satisfy p .
- $(0, 0) \in S^*$: it is the empty sum. Note $(0, 0) \notin S$ itself — the star always contains $\vec{0}$ even when the set does not.
- $(0, 1) \notin S^*$: every member of S with a nonzero second coordinate has $y \geq 2$, and

coordinates never decrease when adding non-negative vectors, so no sum can reach $y = 1$.

So $S^* = \{(0,0)\} \cup \{(x,0) \mid x \geq 1\} \cup \{(0,y) \mid y \geq 2\} \cup \{(x,y) \mid x \geq 1, y \geq 2\}$.

1.2 The `int.star-contains` literal, and where it comes from

`cvc5` accepts the operator

$$\ell = \text{int.star-contains}(\lambda x y. p(x,y), v_1, v_2),$$

a formula that is true exactly when the vector $\vec{v} = (v_1, v_2)$, built from the integer terms v_1, v_2 of the input problem, belongs to S^* . The first argument is a *lambda term*: an anonymous function binding the variables x, y of the predicate, so that the predicate can be passed around as a value.

Example (where such constraints come from). Consider sets A, B over some universe and the constraint $|A| = 3 \wedge |A \cap B| = 0$. Every element of the universe falls into exactly one of four *regions* (in A only, in B only, in both, in neither). Summing, per region, the 0/1 indicator vector of each element shows that the vector of region cardinalities is a *sum of per-element vectors*, each satisfying a fixed predicate — i.e. a member of a star set. This is how Boolean algebra with Presburger arithmetic (BAPA, sets with cardinalities) and its multiset variant (MAPA) are encoded; our benchmarks come from such encodings, where the predicates contain many *ite* (if-then-else) terms defining indicator values.

Deciding ℓ means answering: *can $\vec{v}$ be written as a sum of vectors that each satisfy p ?* The rest of this document is about doing that inside an SMT solver.

1.3 SMT vocabulary used in this document

For readers from neighbouring areas we fix the few solver terms we need. An SMT solver couples a SAT solver (handling the Boolean structure) with *theory solvers* (handling, e.g., linear integer arithmetic, LIA). A *lemma* is a formula a theory solver hands to the SAT solver to be conjoined with the problem; it must not change satisfiability.

Example (lemma). The arithmetic solver may emit $x \geq 1 \Rightarrow x \geq 0$ — valid, so always safe. A lemma may also introduce *fresh* symbols: $d \Rightarrow x = 2$ with a brand-new Boolean d is safe even though it is not valid, because any model can be extended by choosing $d = \text{false}$. Such lemmas are called *satisfiability-preserving*.

A *candidate model* is the assignment the solver currently believes satisfies everything; theory solvers inspect it at *full effort* (when the Boolean search has assigned all variables) and either accept it or emit new lemmas. The SAT solver maintains a *trail* of variable assignments; each is either a *decision* (a guess) or a *propagation* (forced by a clause). The number of decisions on the trail is the *decision level*; anything implied with no decisions at all is *fixed at level 0* — it holds in every model.

Example (trail, propagation, decision level). Clauses: $(a \vee b), (\neg a \vee c)$. The solver *decides* $a = \text{true}$ (level 1); the second clause then *propagates* $c = \text{true}$ at level 1. Nothing here is fixed at level 0: a different decision ($a = \text{false}$) is still possible. If instead the input contained the unit clause (a) , then a would be fixed at level 0.

Finally, a *subsolver* is a separate, private SMT solver instance that a theory creates for its own queries; *incremental* means assertions can be added between satisfiability checks; and checking with

assumptions means temporarily assuming extra literals for a single check, without asserting them permanently.

Example (assumptions and unsat core). Assert $x \geq 1$ permanently; then ask `checkSat` under assumptions $\{x \leq 0, y \geq 5\}$. The answer is `unsat`, and the solver can report *which assumptions were actually used*: the core $\{x \leq 0\}$. The assumption $y \geq 5$ played no role. This “unsat-assumptions core” feature is used twice in this document.

2 The reduction to linear arithmetic

2.1 Cells: the predicate in disjunctive normal form

A formula is in *disjunctive normal form* (DNF) if it is a disjunction (or-list) of conjunctions (and-lists) of atomic constraints. Each conjunction of linear constraints describes a convex polyhedron; we call the polyhedra of the predicate’s DNF its *cells*.

Example. The running example $p(x, y) = (x \geq 1 \wedge y = 0) \vee (x = 0 \wedge y \geq 2)$ is already in DNF and has two cells: the horizontal ray and the vertical ray. A predicate that is *not* in DNF, such as $(x \geq 1 \vee y \geq 1) \wedge (x \leq 5)$, is converted by distributing: $(x \geq 1 \wedge x \leq 5) \vee (y \geq 1 \wedge x \leq 5)$ — two cells.

Example (why ite terms blow the DNF up). The equation $u = \text{ite}(x \geq 1, 1, 0)$ (“ u is 1 if $x \geq 1$, else 0”) becomes the disjunction $(x \geq 1 \wedge u = 1) \vee (x \leq 0 \wedge u = 0)$: one ite doubles the number of cells. Two independent ites give $2 \times 2 = 4$ cells, and the hard benchmark predicates contain up to 2^3 ites — up to $2^{23} \approx 8.4$ million potential cells. This is why the *eager* strategy below fails and a lazy one is needed.

2.2 Describing one cell: generators and rays

To turn a cell into arithmetic, we need a finite description of its infinitely many integer points. The library `Normaliz` provides one: a finite set of *base points* g (called module generators) and a finite set of *directions* $\vec{h}$ (the Hilbert basis of the cell’s *recession cone* — the set of directions in which one can walk forever without leaving the cell). Every integer point of the cell is $g + \sum_k l_k \vec{h}_k$ for some base point and non-negative integers l_k .

Example. The horizontal cell $x \geq 1 \wedge y = 0$ has one base point $g = (1, 0)$ and one direction $\vec{h} = (1, 0)$: its points are $(1, 0) + l \cdot (1, 0) = (1+l, 0)$, i.e. $(1, 0), (2, 0), (3, 0), \dots$. The vertical cell has base point $(0, 2)$ and direction $(0, 1)$.

A two-direction example: the cell $x \geq y \wedge y \geq 0$ (a quarter-plane tilted onto the diagonal) has base point $(0, 0)$ and Hilbert basis $\{(1, 0), (1, 1)\}$; e.g. $(3, 2) = (0, 0) + 1 \cdot (1, 0) + 2 \cdot (1, 1)$. Note $(1, 1)$ is needed: it cannot be built from $(1, 0)$ and any other single direction inside the cell.

2.3 The star constraints

How do we express “ $\vec{v}$ is a sum of *several* points of a cell”? Take the cell’s base point g with a multiplier $\mu \geq 0$ meaning *how many summands* are drawn from this cell, and ray multipliers $l_k \geq 0$ accumulating all the ray steps of all those summands; the cell contributes $\mu \cdot g + \sum_k l_k \vec{h}_k$. The side

condition $\mu = 0 \Rightarrow l_k = 0$ says rays are only available if at least one summand was actually taken. Summing the contributions of all cells and equating with $\vec{v}$ gives the *star constraints*.

Example. For the running example $(p(x, y) = (x \geq 1 \wedge y = 0) \vee (x = 0 \wedge y \geq 2))$ the star constraints over the fresh integer unknowns μ_1, l_1, μ_2, l_2 are

$$v_1 = \mu_1 \cdot 1 + l_1 \cdot 1, \quad v_2 = \mu_2 \cdot 2 + l_2 \cdot 1, \quad \mu_i, l_i \geq 0, \quad \mu_i = 0 \Rightarrow l_i = 0.$$

$\vec{v} \in S^*$ iff these constraints are satisfiable:

- $\vec{v} = (3, 7)$: take $\mu_1 = 1, l_1 = 2$ (one horizontal summand, stretched by 2) and $\mu_2 = 1, l_2 = 5$. Satisfiable — and indeed $(3, 7) = (3, 0) + (0, 7) \in S^*$.
- $\vec{v} = (0, 1)$: $v_2 = 1$ forces $\mu_2 = 0$ (one vertical summand already contributes 2), hence $l_2 = 0$, hence $v_2 = 0 \neq 1$. Unsatisfiable — and indeed $(0, 1) \notin S^*$.

The procedure can therefore emit the single lemma $\ell \Leftrightarrow \text{star}$ and let the ordinary LIA engine decide everything. The *eager* strategy does exactly this, building all cells up front — and dies on the 2^{23} -cell predicates, as explained above. Everything from here on is about avoiding the full DNF.

3 The lazy loop

The lazy strategy discovers cells *one at a time*, maintaining an *under-approximation*: a version of the star constraints, star_k , built from only the k cells found so far. Since missing cells can only *remove* ways of summing, star_k describes a *subset* of S^* .

The discovery engine is a subsolver holding

$$\text{base}(\vec{y}) = p(\vec{y}) \wedge \vec{y} \geq 0$$

over fresh constants $\vec{y} = (y_1, \dots, y_n)$. (Fresh constants are needed because a subsolver cannot be given a formula with the lambda's bound variables; replacing bound variables by fresh constants is standard and preserves satisfiability — e.g. asking whether $\lambda x. x \geq 1$ is satisfiable becomes asking whether $y \geq 1$ is, for a new symbol y .)

Each *round* of the loop does the following.

1. Run **checkSat** on the subsolver, which also holds the negations of all previously found cells. If **unsat**, every cell is covered: emit the *exact* lemma $\ell \Leftrightarrow \text{star}$ and stop. (This exactness is what makes **unsat** answers for ℓ possible at all.)
2. Otherwise read the subsolver's model and extract the cell containing it, by fixing every atomic constraint of *base* to the truth value it has in the model.
3. Hand the cell to **Normaliz**, extend the star constraints to star_k , and emit the *guarded* lemma $g_k \Rightarrow (\ell \Leftrightarrow \text{star}_k)$, where g_k is a fresh Boolean. Also emit $\neg g_{k-1}$, retiring the previous round's guard. The solver is told to *prefer* $g_k = \text{true}$ when it gets to choose (a *phase preference*: a hint for decisions, never a constraint).
4. Assert the negation of the new cell in the subsolver, so the next round's model lies somewhere new.

Example (two rounds on the running example). Round 1: the subsolver holds *base* only; say its model is $\vec{y} = (4, 0)$. The atoms of *base* get the values $x \geq 1 \mapsto \text{true}$, $y = 0 \mapsto \text{true}$, $x = 0 \mapsto \text{false}$, $y \geq 2 \mapsto \text{false}$, giving the cell $D_1 = (x \geq 1 \wedge y = 0 \wedge \neg(x=0) \wedge y < 2)$ — the horizontal cell, plus two redundant conjuncts (cleaned up in the next section). We emit $g_1 \Rightarrow (\ell \Leftrightarrow \text{star}_1)$ where star_1 is $v_1 = \mu_1 + l_1 \wedge v_2 = 0 \wedge \dots$, and assert $\neg D_1$ in the subsolver. Round 2: the subsolver’s model must avoid D_1 , say $\vec{y} = (0, 2)$; we discover the vertical cell, emit $\neg g_1$ and $g_2 \Rightarrow (\ell \Leftrightarrow \text{star}_2)$, and the subsolver becomes *unsat* in round 3: enumeration complete.

Why this step is needed. Why guard the lemma instead of asserting $\ell \Leftrightarrow \text{star}_k$ outright? Because star_k is only an under-approximation. Concretely: after round 1 above, star_1 forces $v_2 = 0$, so for an input where $\vec{v} = (0, 5)$ the unguarded equivalence would force $\ell = \text{false}$ — but $(0, 5) \in S^*$ via the vertical cell, so on an input asserting ℓ the solver would wrongly answer *unsat*. With the guard, the SAT solver escapes by setting $g_1 = \text{false}$ (the lemma $g_1 \Rightarrow \dots$ is then trivially satisfied), and the loop refines further. In the other direction no guard is needed: if the candidate model satisfies $p[\vec{v}]$ ($\vec{v}$ itself is a one-summand member) or satisfies star_k (a k -cell sum exists), then $\vec{v} \in S^*$ really holds — an under-approximation can never wrongly certify *sat*. The procedure accepts a model exactly in these two cases (the *model-value shortcut*).

4 Four refinement strategies, and what they taught us

This section reports engineering variants of the loop. Two are negative results; we keep them because their machinery returns later, and because they redirected the investigation to the real bottlenecks.

4.1 Push/pop refinement

In the baseline, the subsolver accumulates one negated cell per round: after three rounds it holds *base*, $\neg D_1$, $\neg D_2$, $\neg D_3$, and these assertions live forever. The push/pop variant instead keeps a single combined formula: since $\neg(D_1 \vee D_2 \vee D_3)$ implies $\neg(D_1 \vee D_2)$, each round can *pop* (retract) the previous combined formula and assert the new one, keeping exactly two live assertions — the hope being lower memory in the subsolver.

Measured result: no gain. On the hardest instance, both variants time out with the *same* ~ 3.2 GB — profiling showed the memory lived in the *main* solver’s accumulated lemmas, not in the subsolver. On the full suite, push/pop solves slightly *fewer* (460 vs. 463 of 480): popping throws away everything the subsolver had *learned* about already-covered regions, and the cumulative formula must be re-processed from scratch each round. **Lesson: measure the bottleneck before optimizing it.**

4.2 Enumerating inside the main solver

A more radical variant deletes the subsolver and lets the *main* search enumerate cells: the fresh constants $\vec{y}$ are added to the main problem, constrained by lemmas $h_0 \Rightarrow \text{base}(\vec{y})$ and, per discovered cell, $h_k \Rightarrow h_{k-1}$ and $h_k \Rightarrow \neg D_k(\vec{y})$, where the h_k are fresh Booleans (so activating h_k places $\vec{y}$ in a not-yet-covered cell). When the candidate model sets $h_k = \text{true}$, the values of $\vec{y}$ are read off and a new cell is harvested.

Why this step is needed. Three problems appeared, each with a concrete failure.

(1) *Detecting completeness.* In the subsolver version, “**unsat**” announces that all cells are covered. Here one would like to wait until the SAT solver proves $\neg h_k$ outright — but a SAT solver only derives what the search forces it to derive, and nothing forces it to keep trying $h_k = \text{true}$; runs livelocked. The repair is the *driver lemma* $\ell \Rightarrow (p[\vec{v}] \vee \text{star}_k \vee h_k)$: if the input asserts ℓ and the model certifies it by neither $p[\vec{v}]$ nor star_k , the model *must* set $h_k = \text{true}$, i.e. exhibit a fresh cell. When all cells are covered, the h_k branch becomes contradictory and only the certified branches survive.

(2) *The empty sum.* The first-round driver must not be $\ell \Rightarrow (p[\vec{v}] \vee h_0)$. Counterexample: take the predicate $p(x) = x \geq 1 \wedge x \leq 0$, which no point satisfies, so $S^* = \{\vec{0}\}$; and an input asserting ℓ plus $v_1 = 0$. Then ℓ is *true* ($\vec{v} = \vec{0}$ is the empty sum), but $p[\vec{v}]$ is false and h_0 is contradictory (*base* is unsatisfiable) — the driver would force $\neg \ell$: a wrong **unsat**. The star branch must therefore always include the empty sum, $\vec{v} = \vec{0}$. This bug was found by an adversarial review and is now the regression test `empty_pred_sat.smt2`.

(3) *Solver pops.* In incremental usage (**push/pop** by the *user*), lemmas are retracted on pop but the extension’s bookkeeping survives, so the enumeration constraints silently vanished (observed as a wrong **sat**). Fix: re-submit all enumeration lemmas every round; the solver’s lemma cache drops duplicates for free and re-sends them after a pop.

Measured result: sound after the fixes, but clearly worse (447 vs. 463): every refinement round now drags the entire input problem along, and only one cell is harvested per full-effort check. The lasting value is the *decoupling lesson* — enumeration and the main search starve each other when coupled — which returns with the sign flipped in Section 5.

4.3 Generalizing the discovered cells (now the default)

Step 2 of the lazy loop fixes *every* atom of *base* to its model value. That makes cells as small as possible — bad, because more cells means more rounds.

Example. Recall from the round-1 walk-through that the model $\vec{g} = (4, 0)$ produced

$$D_1 = x \geq 1 \wedge y = 0 \wedge \neg(x = 0) \wedge y < 2.$$

The conjuncts $\neg(x = 0)$ and $y < 2$ come from atoms of the *other* cell and are redundant here. Now imagine the predicate also contained an unrelated *ite* over a variable w : its atoms (say $w \geq 5$ and its negation) would also be fixed, splitting the one horizontal cell into *two* cells ($w \geq 5$ and $w < 5$) that the loop must discover separately. With m irrelevant atoms, one logical cell shatters into up to 2^m discovered cells.

Boolean generalization repairs this with a *prime implicant* computation. (An implicant of a formula is a conjunction of literals that forces the formula to be true; it is *prime* if dropping any literal breaks that. Example: for $a \wedge (b \vee c)$, the conjunction $a \wedge b \wedge c$ is an implicant; $a \wedge b$ is a prime implicant.) The algorithm walks over the kept literals and, for each, temporarily marks its atom *unknown* and re-evaluates *base* in three-valued logic — where $\wedge$ yields *false* if any conjunct is *false*, *unknown* if any is unknown (and none *false*), and *true* otherwise; $\vee$ is the mirror image. If the formula still evaluates to *true*, every possible value of that atom keeps *base* true, so the literal is dropped for good.

Example. On D_1 above, with $base = (x \geq 1 \wedge y = 0) \vee (x = 0 \wedge y \geq 2)$: marking $\neg(x=0)$'s atom unknown leaves the first disjunct $true \wedge true = true$, so the disjunction is *true* — drop it. Marking $y < 2$'s atom ($y \geq 2$) unknown: same — drop it. Marking $x \geq 1$ unknown: the first disjunct becomes *unknown*, the second is *false*, so the disjunction is *unknown* — keep it. Result: $D'_1 = x \geq 1 \wedge y = 0$, exactly the logical cell.

Soundness: three-valued *true* under a partial assignment means *every* completion of the unknowns satisfies *base* — i.e. the kept conjunction still implies *base*, so the cell's points all lie in S and the star constraints built from it never overshoot. The model point stays inside the (larger) cell, so asserting its negation still makes progress. And if two generalized cells overlap, nothing breaks: the correctness of the cell-by-cell star encoding only needs the cells to *cover* S , not to be disjoint — a sum grouped by cells stays a sum.

Measured result: the best general-purpose improvement of the whole project — discovered cells halve in size, 466/480 solved, $4.4\times$ faster on the commonly solved instances. Enabled by default.

Semantic generalization (optional, off) pushes further: drop a literal whenever the rest *arithmetically* implies *base*, which the propositional view cannot see.

Example. $base = x \geq 1 \wedge x + y \geq 1 \wedge y \geq 0$, model $(1, 0)$. All three atoms are top-level conjuncts, so the propositional check keeps all three. But $x \geq 1 \wedge y \geq 0$ already implies $x + y \geq 1$ *as arithmetic*. The implication is verified with a probe subsolver holding $\neg base$: check, under assumptions $\{x \geq 1, y \geq 0\}$ — *unsat* confirms the implication, so $x + y \geq 1$ is dropped and the cell fattens.

Measured result: negative on this suite (465 solved, $2.25\times$ slower) — each probe costs a solver call, and fatter cells have larger Hilbert bases, hence more multipliers. Kept as an option; its *probe-validation* pattern (“a claim about all of *base* = one *unsat* answer”) is reused by the cut synthesis in Section 6.

4.4 Constant-size lemmas via partial sums

Round k 's guarded lemma contains the sum constraints over *all* k cells, so the total text emitted over K rounds grows like K^2 . One can instead define *running totals* once per round — $P_k = P_{k-1} + (\text{round } k\text{'s contribution})$, over fresh unknowns P_k — and shrink the guarded lemma to the constant-size $\vec{v} = P_k$. The definitions are safe to assert unconditionally: they only constrain fresh symbols (set all multipliers to 0 and every P_k to $\vec{0}$ to satisfy them in any model).

Measured result: clearly negative — memory rose (4.4 vs. 3.3 GB on the hard instance) and 13 fewer instances were solved. Two measured reasons. First, the per-cell machinery (multiplier bounds, coupling implications, definition rows) is itself tens of lemmas per round; the quadratic term we removed was not the dominant cost. Second, a subtle search effect: when the solver explores $\ell = false$ under the guarded equivalence, it must falsify the star formula; falsifying the old “fat” star was cheap (violate any one $\mu \geq 0$), but falsifying $\vec{v} = P_k$ means asserting a *disequality* $v_i \neq P_k[i]$, which integer reasoning handles by case-splitting ($<$ or $>$) — the count of those splits exploded ($14 \rightarrow 663$). **Lesson: lemma *shape* affects search, not just lemma size.** This negative result redirected attention from memory to the two real bottlenecks, treated next.

5 Hard satisfiable instances: aim the search, then finish the job

The hardest sat instances (the fol_0000099--106 family) survived everything above; the flagship fol_0000100 timed out at 600s in every configuration, running ~ 1000 refinement rounds. Three

measured facts explain it, and each dictates one component of the cure.

Fact 1: a one-summand witness does not exist. The input’s side constraints force $\vec{v}$ to be a sum of at least two members (checked standalone: side constraints $\wedge p[\vec{v}]$ is *unsat*), so the model-value shortcut cannot fire early; the star is unavoidable.

Fact 2: undirected discovery wanders. The subsolver’s model is *any* point not yet covered — nothing relates it to $\vec{v}$. Traced on `fo1_0000100`: the cells needed to decompose $\vec{v}$ appear within ~ 30 rounds when the search is aimed (below), while the unaimed search ran 580 cones without assembling them (proved by an *unsat-core* analysis in the next section).

Fact 3: the endgame is starved. Even with the right cells present, certifying *sat* means the *main* solver must find integer values for hundreds of multipliers — an integer program. Integer reasoning in `cvc5` finishes with *branch-and-bound*: if the relaxed (fractional) solution has $\mu = 1.5$, the solver splits on $\mu \leq 1 \vee \mu \geq 2$ and recurses. Two measured interferences kept this from ever completing: (i) the star extension runs *before* branch-and-bound each round, sees a fractional candidate (which fails the model-value shortcut), and immediately harvests another cell — rewriting and growing the integer program before the splitting could finish; (ii) the star’s many fresh equality atoms enter the SAT solver with default (false-leaning) phases, so some atom is assigned *false* early, which *unit-propagates* the guard g_k to *false* long before any decision on g_k — measured: across 643 rounds the guard was never *true* even once, so the solver never even attempted the star. A phase *preference* on g_k is powerless against propagation.

The cure has three cooperating parts.

5.1 Part 1: guided enumeration (default on)

Proposition 1. *If $\vec{v} = \vec{s}_1 + \dots + \vec{s}_k$ with all $\vec{s}_j \geq 0$, then every summand satisfies $\vec{s}_j \leq \vec{v}$ coordinate-wise.*

Proof. Removing non-negative summands never increases any coordinate. □

So only cells intersecting the box $\vec{y} \leq \vec{v}$ can contribute to a decomposition of $\vec{v}$. The subsolver query is therefore first asked under the assumptions $\{y_i \leq \hat{v}_i\}$, where $\hat{v}$ is the value of $\vec{v}$ in the current candidate model; if the assumed query is *unsat*, it is retried without assumptions. The fallback keeps the completeness signal intact: “*unsat* without assumptions” still means full coverage.

Example. Running example, $p(x, y) = (x \geq 1 \wedge y = 0) \vee (x = 0 \wedge y \geq 2)$, with the input forcing $\vec{v} = (5, 0)$. The assumptions are $y_1 \leq 5 \wedge y_2 \leq 0$. The vertical cell needs $y_2 \geq 2$ — excluded outright. The enumeration will only ever look at the horizontal cell: the single cell that can decompose $(5, 0)$. On `fo1_0000100`, 7 of the 14 indicator coordinates of $\vec{v}$ are 0, so the assumptions pin those y_i to 0 and the search space collapses onto the relevant region.

5.2 Part 2: a decoupled endgame (default on, every 10 cells)

Every N newly discovered cells, the extension builds a *fresh* subsolver and asks one clean question:

$$F_0 \wedge \text{star}_k \stackrel{?}{=} \text{sat},$$

where F_0 is the set of arithmetic facts *fixed at decision level 0* in the main solver (recall the trail example: level-0 facts hold in every model — they are exactly the input-entailed constraints). A fresh solver has no history — no retired guards, no unlucky phases, no half-grown integer program — and runs branch-and-bound to completion in milliseconds. If the answer is *sat*, its model is a complete witness: concrete values for $\vec{v}$ and for every multiplier.

Why this step is needed. Both design choices were forced by failures.

Why only level-0 facts? The first version asserted *all* facts currently on the trail. On `fol.0000100` the trail happened to contain the branch decision $n = 1$ (part of an abandoned search region that was already known to be contradictory), and every endgame query inherited it — so every query answered `unsat` even though the discovered cells could perfectly well decompose a valid $\vec{v}$ with, say, $n = 4$. Level-0 facts are exactly those every model must satisfy: the query becomes “can the current cells justify *some* valid $\vec{v}$,” which is the right question.

Why a fresh solver? The main solver could in principle answer the same question — Fact 3 shows why it never does: the question keeps being rewritten under it. This is the decoupling lesson from the failed main-solver experiment, applied in the profitable direction.

5.3 Part 3: feeding the witness back as decisions

The witness must now reach the *main* solver. Encoding it as a lemma $d \Rightarrow (x_1 = c_1 \wedge \dots \wedge x_m = c_m)$, with d a fresh Boolean whose phase is preferred *true*, measurably never works.

Example (why the hint lemma never fires). Hint: $d \Rightarrow (a = 2 \wedge b = 3)$, i.e. clauses $(\neg d \vee a=2)$ and $(\neg d \vee b=3)$. Suppose the trail already contains $a = 1$ — some earlier decision or propagation made for unrelated reasons. Then the atom $a=2$ is *false* and the first clause *unit-propagates* $\neg d$. The phase preference on d is irrelevant: d is never *decided*, it is forced. With $m \approx 230$ pinned values, *some* variable is always already bound differently, so this happens every single round — measured: the hint guard was *false* at every check, forever.

The fix uses a different solver facility: a *decision strategy*. SAT solvers let theory modules dictate the next decision variable(s), taking priority over the built-in heuristic. While a hint is active, our strategy feeds the solver d first and then each equality $x_i = c_i$, as *decisions*. A decision happens at the top of the trail — nothing is “already bound differently” there; the solver either completes the witness assignment (and the model-value shortcut then certifies `sat`, since the witness satisfies *star_k*), or hits a genuine conflict whose reason is recorded and search continues. Only one hint is active per literal — a newer witness retires the previous guard with $\neg d_{old}$ — because two witnesses pin the same variables to different values and would fight.

The hint lemma itself is sound for the usual reason: d is fresh, so any model extends by $d = \text{false}$.

Measured result: `fol.0000100` went from a 600-second timeout (in every prior configuration) to `sat` in 0.7 seconds, model-checked; the whole hard `sat` family followed; 476/480 overall, with four `unsat` instances left.

6 Hard unsatisfiable instances: over-approximation by cuts

For an `unsat` instance the loop so far has only one exit: complete the enumeration and emit the exact equivalence. On the four remaining instances that is hopeless — the cell count is astronomic (the eager mode times out too). What is missing is the *other* half of the approximation recipe: a way to *over-approximate* S^* , so that “input $\wedge$ over-approximation `unsat`” refutes ℓ *without* enumerating anything.

6.1 Cuts: inequalities that survive addition

Proposition 2. *Let $\vec{c}$ be an integer vector. If $\vec{c} \cdot \vec{y} \geq 0$ holds for every $\vec{y} \in S$ (a homogeneous valid inequality — no constant term), then $\vec{c} \cdot \vec{v} \geq 0$ holds for every $\vec{v} \in S^*$.*

Proof. If $\vec{v} = \sum_j \vec{s}_j$ then $\vec{c} \cdot \vec{v} = \sum_j \vec{c} \cdot \vec{s}_j \geq 0$, a sum of non-negative numbers; and the empty sum gives $\vec{c} \cdot \vec{0} = 0 \geq 0$. $\square$

We call such an inequality a *cut*. A cut is a sound, *unconditional* lemma about $\vec{v}$: no guard, no enumeration, no completeness requirement.

Example. Let $S' = \{(1, 1)\}$, so $(S')^* = \{(k, k) \mid k \geq 0\}$ — the diagonal. The inequality $x - y \geq 0$ is valid on S' (it holds at $(1, 1)$) and homogeneous, so it lifts: every (k, k) satisfies $k - k \geq 0$. Now suppose the input asserts $v_1 = 3 \wedge v_2 = 5$ and ℓ . The single cut lemma $v_1 - v_2 \geq 0$ contradicts $3 - 5 = -2 \geq 0$ — the solver answers *unsat* immediately, having never built a single cell cone.

Counter-example (why homogeneity is required). The inequality $x \leq 1$ *also* holds for every member of $S' = \{(1, 1)\}$, but it must *not* be lifted: $(2, 2) \in (S')^*$ violates it. The difference: $x \leq 1$ has a constant term ($x - 1 \leq 0$), and constants do not scale when summands are added. The same trap in the running example $p(x, y) = (x \geq 1 \wedge y = 0) \vee (x = 0 \wedge y \geq 2)$: every point of S satisfies $x + y \geq 1$, yet the empty sum $\vec{0} \in S^*$ does not. Homogeneous ($\vec{c} \cdot \vec{y} \geq 0$) is exactly the shape that survives addition.

Why should such cuts refute our benchmarks? Because their *unsat* arguments are *counting* arguments: “every summand lacks at least one of these five features, but the input demands totals only achievable if almost no summand lacks any.” Summed per-summand inequalities are precisely homogeneous cuts.

6.2 Conditional cuts: exploiting forced zeros

Proposition 3. Suppose the input forces $v_i = 0$. Then every summand of every decomposition of $\vec{v}$ has $y_i = 0$ (coordinates are non-negative and sums cannot cancel). Hence an inequality valid merely on the restriction $S \cap \{\vec{y} \mid y_i = 0\}$ is still a sound cut for this $\vec{v}$.

Example. In the running example, suppose the input forces $v_2 = 0$. Every summand then has $y = 0$, i.e. comes from the horizontal cell. On that restriction the inequality $x - y \geq 0$ is valid (it fails on the vertical cell, so it is *not* valid on all of S) — and it may be soundly asserted for $\vec{v}$.

On the real benchmark `fol.0000107` (multiset encoding) the refuting cut is $4u_{10} - u_{14} - u_{17} - u_{20} - u_{23} - u_{26} \geq 0$ (“the five tracked totals never exceed four universes”), which is valid *only* where six comparison-indicator coordinates are 0 — and the input pins exactly those coordinates of $\vec{v}$ to the constant 0. Without conditional cuts this instance is out of reach; with them it refutes in 2 seconds.

Forced zeros are easy to detect: input equalities like $u_{13} = 0$ are substituted into the literal by preprocessing, so the corresponding argument of ℓ is literally the constant 0.

6.3 Finding cuts automatically

A cut useful for refutation must do two jobs: be *valid* on (the restriction of) S , and *reject* the values of $\vec{v}$ the input allows. The synthesis loop interleaves both, in the style known as counterexample-guided inductive synthesis (CEGIS): propose a candidate from finitely many constraints, check it against the real object, and turn each failure into a new constraint.

Concretely, whenever the endgame query $F_0 \wedge \text{star}_k$ answers *unsat* (“the discovered cells cannot justify ℓ — maybe nothing can”), the extension runs:

1. **Target.** Find a model of $F_0 \wedge C$, where C are the cuts found so far. If there is none, the already-emitted cut lemmas contradict the input by themselves; the main solver will answer **unsat** on its own, and synthesis stops. Otherwise read the target $\hat{v}$.
2. **Candidate.** Solve a small integer query for coefficients $\vec{c}$ such that: $\sum_i |c_i| \leq K$ for an escalating budget $K \in \{4, 9, 16, 30\}$; $\vec{c} \cdot \vec{q} \geq 0$ for every known sample point $\vec{q}$ of the restricted predicate; and $\vec{c} \cdot \hat{v} \leq -1$ (the candidate must reject the target).
3. **Validate.** Ask the probe (the *base* oracle reused from semantic generalization): is $\text{base} \wedge \bigwedge_{v_i=0} y_i=0 \wedge \vec{c} \cdot \vec{y} \leq -1$ satisfiable? If **unsat**, the candidate is a valid cut — emit $\vec{c} \cdot \vec{v} \geq 0$ and return to step 1. If **sat**, the probe’s model is a genuine point of the restricted predicate violating the candidate — add it to the samples and return to step 2.

Example (one full pass). $S' = \{(1, 1)\}$, input $v_1 = 3 \wedge v_2 = 5$, no samples yet. *Target:* $\hat{v} = (3, 5)$. *Candidate:* with no sample constraints, the solver may propose $\vec{c} = (0, -1)$, i.e. “ $-y \geq 0$ ”, which indeed rejects the target ($-5 \leq -1$). *Validate:* is some point of S' with $-y \leq -1$? Yes, $(1, 1)$ — the candidate is not valid; $(1, 1)$ becomes a sample. *Candidate again:* now require $c_1 + c_2 \geq 0$ (from the sample) and $3c_1 + 5c_2 \leq -1$ (target); the budget-minimal solution is $\vec{c} = (1, -1)$. *Validate:* no point of S' has $x - y \leq -1$ — valid. Emit $v_1 - v_2 \geq 0$. *Target again:* $F_0 \wedge (v_1 - v_2 \geq 0)$ with $v_1=3, v_2=5$ is **unsat** — done; the input is refuted.

Why this step is needed. Each ingredient of the loop closes a failure observed without it.

The sparsity budget. With 21 coordinates and coefficients in $[-10, 10]$, there are $\sim 21^{21}$ candidate vectors; an unbounded search returns scattered dense candidates, the oracle refutes them one counterexample at a time, and 40 iterations made no visible progress. The cuts that exist in practice are *sparse* (few nonzero, small coefficients — like every example above), and bounding $\sum_i |c_i|$ makes the candidate space tiny. An offline replica of the exact loop converged on `fol_0000107` in 8 cuts and ~ 33 candidate–validate iterations once the budget was added.

Level-0 facts for the target, for the same reason as the endgame: a branch-pinned target sends the synthesis chasing values no model needs.

Sample points yes, directions no. Sample points are seeded from the module generators of already-discovered cells: a generator is a real point of S , and if its restricted coordinates are zero it lies in the restricted region, so requiring $\vec{c} \cdot \vec{q} \geq 0$ on it is exactly right and saves validate-rounds. The cells’ *ray* directions must NOT be used the same way, and this was a real bug: consider a cell whose pinned indicator is $u_{13} = 1$. Every *ray* of that cell has 0 in the u_{13} coordinate — moving along a direction never changes a pinned equality — so the ray slips past the “restricted coordinates are zero” filter while describing motion *inside a cell that is entirely outside the restriction*. Requiring $\vec{c} \cdot \vec{r} \geq 0$ on such rays excluded precisely the valid conditional cut on `fol_0000107`: the in-solver loop failed while the ray-free offline replica succeeded, and removing the ray constraints reconciled the two. Unbounded directions are still handled soundly: if a candidate is violated far out along some direction of the restricted region, the validation probe simply returns a far-out *point* as the counterexample.

Measured result: the four remaining instances refute in 0.2–2.0 seconds; nothing else on the suite is affected.

7 Results

All experiments: production build of `cvc5` with `Normaliz`; 480 benchmarks (arith/card $\times$ BAPA/MAPA encodings of set-reachability problems); 100 s timeout; 12-way parallel harness; one solver thread (`OMP_NUM_THREADS=1`); 6 GB memory cap per process. No answer discrepancy was observed anywhere: neither between any two of our configurations, nor against the four independent reference solvers recorded with the benchmark data.

Table 1: Solved instances per configuration (480 benchmarks, 100 s).

configuration	sat	unsat	timeout	solved
old recorded lazy baseline	272	178	30	450
lazy accumulate	283	180	17	463
lazy push/pop	280	180	20	460
lazy main-solver enumeration	273	174	33	447
lazy + boolean generalization	285	181	14	466
lazy + semantic generalization	284	181	15	465
lazy + partial sums	272	178	30	450
guided + endgame (no cuts)	296	180	4	476
final default (+ cuts)	296	184	0	480

The final default — boolean generalization, guided enumeration, the decoupled endgame with decision-strategy witness feedback, and conditional homogeneous cuts — solves the entire suite in 143.5 s cumulative (median 45 ms per instance, slowest instance 37.2 s), including multiset instances on which the reference solver that generated the benchmarks itself timed out.

option	default	role
<code>arith-liastar-generalize</code>	on	prime-implicant cells
<code>arith-liastar-guided</code>	on	decomposition-guided discovery
<code>arith-liastar-endgame=N</code>	10	decoupled witness search
<code>arith-liastar-cuts</code>	on	conditional homogeneous cuts
<code>arith-liastar-generalize-semantic</code>	off	arithmetic cell fattening
<code>arith-liastar-push-pop</code>	off	cumulative subsolver refinement
<code>arith-liastar-main-solver</code>	off	subsolver-free enumeration
<code>arith-liastar-partial-sums</code>	off	constant-size reduction lemmas
<code>arith-liastar-patient</code>	off	refinement-throttling experiment

8 Takeaways

- **Measure, then optimize.** The two memory-motivated designs (push/pop, partial sums) attacked a bottleneck that profiling refuted; the real walls were the *order* of cell discovery (sat side) and the missing over-approximation (unsat side).
- **Approximate from both sides.** Under-approximations certify **sat** as soon as enough cells exist; homogeneous (conditionally valid) cuts certify **unsat** without ever completing the enumeration. The lazy star needs both.

- **Decouple searches that starve each other.** In-search refinement kept rewriting the main solver’s integer program; a fresh subsolver answers the same question in milliseconds. And when feeding a many-variable witness back, use a decision strategy — propagation defeats phase preferences every time.
- **Negative results pay rent.** The probe oracle built for the losing semantic generalization became the validity engine of the winning cut synthesis; the failed main-solver experiment supplied the decoupling principle behind the endgame.